STATES OF MATTER 3 | ELEMENTS, COMPOUNDS AND MIXTURES 14 | ATOMIC STRUCTURE 24
THE PERIODIC TABLE 30 | CHEMICAL FORMULAE, EQUATIONS AND CALCULATIONS PART 1: 38, PART 2: 64
IONIC BONDING 75 | COVALENT BONDING 85 | METALLIC BONDING 98 | ELECTROLYSIS 101

UNIT 1 PRINCIPLES OF CHEMISTRY

The universe is made of three things!

Up to the present day scientists have discovered 118 elements. Most of these have been made naturally in stars but some are made artificially. As far as we know these are the only elements in the universe, so we basically have a model kit containing 118 different atoms. Chemistry can be described as the study of how these different atoms are joined together in various ways to make everything around us, from a tree, to a person, to the tallest skyscraper. Many of these elements are not very common so most of the things we see around us are made up of different combinations of only about a quarter of these elements. What makes this even more amazing is that each atom is made up of just three subatomic particles, which are called protons, neutrons and electrons. So, the world around us is made of only three things arranged in different ways.



▲ Figure 1.1 Southern view of the Milky Way

1 STATES OF MATTER

Everything around us is made of particles that we can't see because they are so small. This chapter looks at the arrangement of particles in solids, liquids and gases, and the ways in which the particles can move around. The nature of the different sorts of particles will be explored in Chapter 3.



▲ Figure 1.2 Everything you look at is a solid, a liquid or a gas . . .



▲ Figure 1.3 . . . metals, concrete, water, air, clouds – everything!

LEARNING OBJECTIVES

- Understand the three states of matter in terms of the arrangement, movement and energy of the particles
- Understand the interconversions between the three states of matter in terms of:
  - the names of the interconversions
  - how they are achieved
  - the changes in arrangement, movement and energy of the particles
- Understand how the results of experiments involving the dilution of coloured solutions and diffusion of gases can be explained
- Know what is meant by the terms:
  - solvent
  - solute
  - solution
  - saturated solution

CHEMISTRY ONLY

- Know what is meant by the term solubility in the units g per 100 g of solvent.
- Understand how to plot and interpret solubility curves.
- Practical: Investigate the solubility of a solid in water at a specific temperature.

STATES OF MATTER

Solids, liquids and gases are known as the three states of matter.

THE ARRANGEMENT OF THE PARTICLES

Think about these facts:

- You can't walk through a brick wall, but you can move (with some resistance – it pushes against you) through water. Moving through air is easy.
- When you melt most solids their volume increases slightly. Most liquids are less dense than the solid they come from.
- If you boil about 5 cm^3 of water, the steam will fill an average bucket.

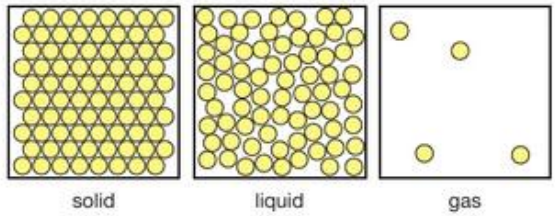
HINT

The packing in the solid might be completely different. What is important is that the particles are close together and, usually, regularly packed. When you draw a liquid, make sure the particles are mostly touching the particles next to them.

KEY POINTS

- You can't walk through a brick wall because of the strong forces of attraction between the particles – the particles can't move out of your way.
- You can swim through water because you can push the particles out of the way.
- It is easy to move through a gas because there are no forces between the particles.

The arrangement of the particles in solids, liquids and gases explains these facts.



▲ Figure 1.4 The arrangement of particles in different states of matter

In a solid, the particles are usually arranged regularly and packed closely together. The particles are only able to vibrate about fixed positions; they can't move around. The particles have strong forces of attraction between them, which keep them together.

In a liquid, the particles are still mostly touching, but some gaps have appeared. This is why liquids are usually less dense than solids. The forces between the particles are less effective, and the particles can move around each other. The particles in a liquid are arranged randomly.

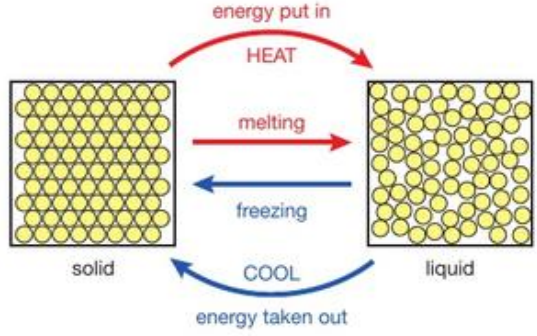
The particles in a gas are moving randomly at high speed in all directions. In a gas, the particles are much further apart and there are (almost) no forces of attraction between them.

The particles in a solid have less kinetic (movement) energy than the particles in a liquid, which have less kinetic energy than the particles in a gas.

INTERCONVERSIONS BETWEEN THE THREE STATES OF MATTER

CHANGING STATE BETWEEN SOLID AND LIQUID

If you heat a solid, the energy provided by the heat source makes the particles in the solid vibrate faster and faster. Eventually, they vibrate so fast that the forces of attraction between the particles are no longer strong enough to hold them together; the particles are then able to move around each other – the solid melts to form a liquid. The temperature at which the solid **melts** is called its **melting point**. The particles in the liquid have more kinetic energy than the particles in the solid so energy has to be supplied to convert a solid to a liquid.



▲ Figure 1.5 Melting to become a liquid – and freezing to become a solid.

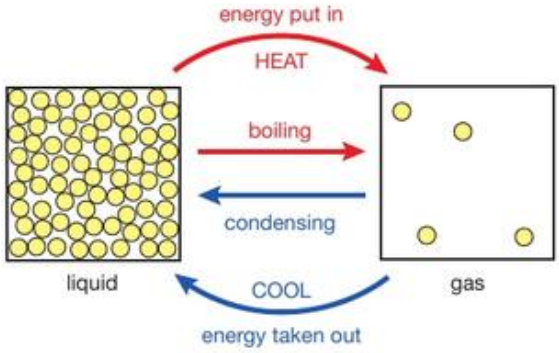
If the liquid is cooled again, the liquid particles will move around more and more slowly. Eventually, they are moving so slowly that the forces of attraction between them will hold them in a fixed position and the particles pack more closely together into a solid. The liquid **freezes**, forming a solid. The temperature at which this occurs is called the **freezing point**.

Although they are called different things depending which way you are going, the temperature of the melting point and that of the freezing point of a substance are exactly the same.

CHANGING STATE BETWEEN LIQUID AND GAS

There are two different ways this can happen, called **boiling** and **evaporation**.

BOILING



▲ Figure 1.6 Boiling to become a gas – and condensing to become a liquid.

Boiling occurs when a liquid is heated so strongly that the particles are moving fast enough to overcome all the forces of attraction between them. The stronger the forces of attraction between particles, the higher the boiling point of the liquid. This is because more energy is needed to overcome these forces of attraction.

If a gas is cooled, the particles eventually move slowly enough that forces of attraction between them start to form and hold them together as a liquid. The gas condenses.

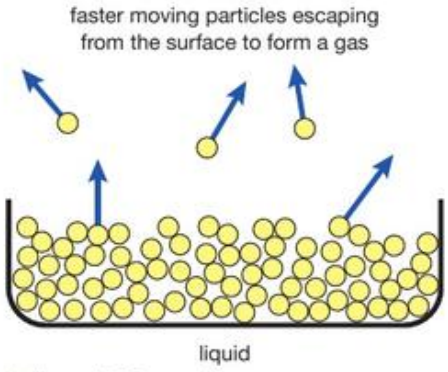
KEY POINT

Evaporation occurs at any temperature, but boiling only occurs at one temperature – the boiling point of the liquid. Puddles of water disappear quite quickly despite the outside temperature often being below 5 °C in the winter in the UK. The water in the puddles certainly does not boil at this temperature; the water evaporates. So water will evaporate at, for example, 5 °C but only boil at 100 °C.

EVAPORATION

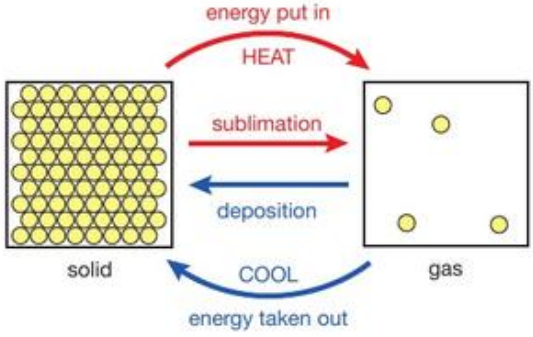
Evaporation is different. In any liquid or gas, the average speed of the particles varies with the temperature. But at each temperature, some particles will be moving faster than the average and others more slowly.

Some very fast particles at the surface of the liquid will have enough energy to overcome the forces of attraction between the particles – they will break away to form a gas. This is evaporation. You don't see any bubbling; the liquid just slowly disappears if it is open to the air. If the liquid is in a closed container, particles in the gas will also be colliding with particles at the surface of the liquid. If they are moving slowly enough they will be held by the attractive forces and become part of the liquid. In a closed container evaporation and condensation will both be occurring at the same time.



▲ Figure 1.7 Evaporation.

CHANGING STATE BETWEEN SOLID AND GAS: SUBLIMATION



▲ Figure 1.8 This change of state goes directly from a solid to a gas and from a gas to a solid.

A small number of substances can change directly from a solid to a gas, or from a gas to a solid, at normal pressure without involving any liquid in the process. The conversion of a solid into a gas is known as **sublimation** and the reverse process is usually called **deposition**.

KEY POINT

The process of a gas changing into a solid is given various names. Some people call it 'de-sublimation' or 'deposition' and others just use the word 'sublimation' again.



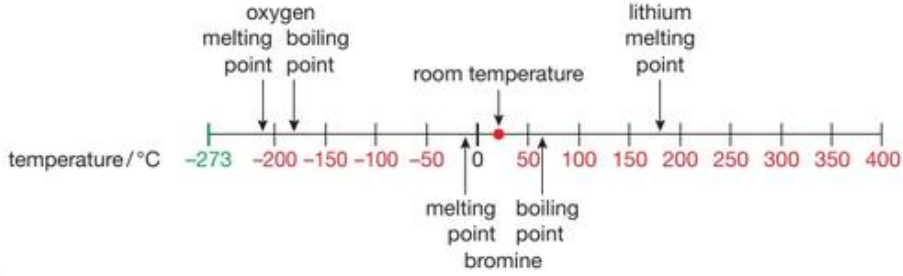
▲ Figure 1.9 Dry ice subliming. Notice the white solid carbon dioxide in the beaker. The white cloud is because the carbon dioxide gas produced is so cold that it causes water vapour in the air to condense. Carbon dioxide gas itself is invisible.

An example of a substance that sublimes is carbon dioxide. At ordinary pressures, there is no such thing as liquid carbon dioxide – it turns directly from a solid to a gas at –78.5 °C. Solid carbon dioxide is known as dry ice.

WORKING OUT THE PHYSICAL STATE OF A SUBSTANCE AT A PARTICULAR TEMPERATURE

A substance is a solid at temperatures below its melting point, between its melting point and its boiling point it is a liquid, and above its boiling point it is a gas.

In science we can decide whether a substance is a solid, a liquid or a gas at room temperature by looking at where its melting and boiling points are in relation to room temperature.



▲ Figure 1.10 A temperature line can be used to work out whether substances are solids, liquids or gases.

KEY POINT

Room temperature is different in different places but in science it is usually taken to mean a temperature between 20 and 25 °C. Because there is not just one fixed value, for changes of state that occur near room temperature we must be careful when making comparisons and make clear what value is being used as room temperature.

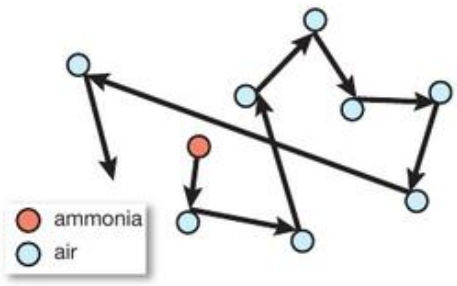
If we look at the temperature line in Figure 1.10 we can see that room temperature is above the boiling point of oxygen; this means that oxygen is a gas at room temperature.

Let's look at what happens when we heat bromine from –100 °C to 100 °C. As –100 °C is below bromine's melting point, bromine is a solid at –100 °C. As it is heated to –7 °C (its melting point) it becomes a liquid and it remains as a liquid until its temperature reaches the boiling point at 59 °C. Room temperature is between the melting point and the boiling point, which means that bromine is a liquid at room temperature. Above 59 °C bromine is a gas.

Lithium's melting point is above room temperature and so it is a solid at room temperature.

DIFFUSION

DIFFUSION IN GASES

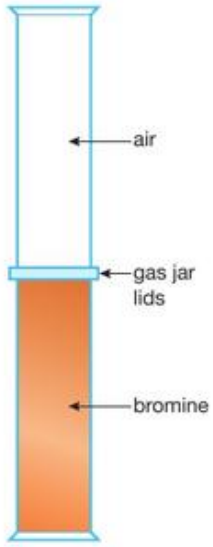


▲ Figure 1.11 An ammonia particle bouncing off air particles.

Suppose someone accidentally releases some smelly gas in the lab, ammonia for example. Within a minute or so, everybody in the lab will be able to smell it. That isn't surprising – particles in the gas are free to move around. What does need explaining, though, is why it takes so long.

At room temperature, ammonia particles travel at speeds of about 600 metres per second so they should be able to travel from one end of a lab to the other in less than 1/100 s (0.01 s). This would be the case if they travelled in a straight line without bumping into anything else. However, each particle is bouncing off air particles on its way. In the time that it takes for the smell to reach all corners of the lab, each ammonia particle may have travelled 30 or more kilometres!

The spreading out of particles in a gas or liquid is known as **diffusion**. We say that ammonia particles *diffuse* through the air. A formal definition of diffusion is:



▲ Figure 1.13 Demonstrating diffusion in gases

Diffusion is the spreading out of particles from where they are at a high concentration (there are lots of them in a certain volume) to where they are at a low concentration (there are fewer of them in a certain volume).



▲ Figure 1.12 Diffusion involves the spreading out of particles.

You can show diffusion in gases very easily by using the apparatus in Figure 1.13. The lower gas jar contains bromine gas; the top one contains air. If the lids are removed, the brown colour of the bromine diffuses upwards until both gas jars are uniformly brown (the air particles also diffuse downwards). The bromine particles and air particles move around at random to give an even mixture – both gas jars contain air and bromine particles.

You can carry out the same experiment with hydrogen and air, but in this example you have to put a lighted splint in at the end to find out where the gases have gone. People often expect that the much less dense hydrogen will all go to the top gas jar. In fact, you will get identical explosions from both jars.

! Safety Note: The teacher demonstration must be prepared in a working fume cupboard wearing eye protection and chemical-resistant gloves. Inhalation of bromine by anyone with breathing difficulties may produce a reaction, possibly delayed, requiring urgent medical attention.

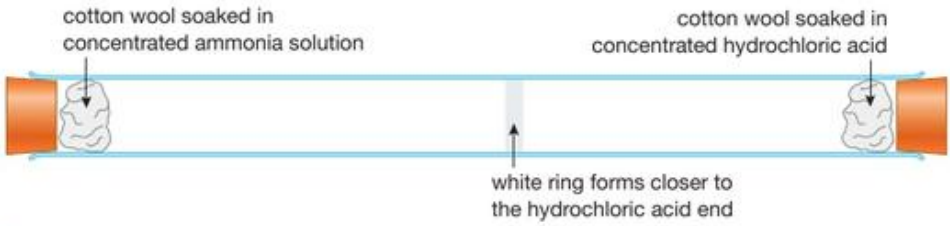
SHOWING THAT PARTICLES OF DIFFERENT GASES TRAVEL AT DIFFERENT SPEEDS

HINT

Don't worry if you don't know how to write symbol equations. This one is included here so that you can refer to it again in later revision.

This experiment relies on the reaction between ammonia (NH_3) and hydrogen chloride (HCl) gases to give white solid ammonium chloride (NH_4Cl):

$$NH_3(g) + HCl(g) \rightarrow NH_4Cl(s)$$



▲ Figure 1.14 Demonstrating that particles in ammonia and hydrogen chloride travel at different speeds.

! Safety Note: The teacher demonstration requires eye protection and the avoidance of skin contact and inhalation of any fumes. The apparatus has to be cleaned up in a working fume cupboard.

Pieces of cotton wool are soaked in concentrated ammonia solution (as a source of ammonia gas) and concentrated hydrochloric acid (as a source of hydrogen chloride gas). These are placed in the ends of a long glass tube with rubber bungs to stop the poisonous gases escaping.

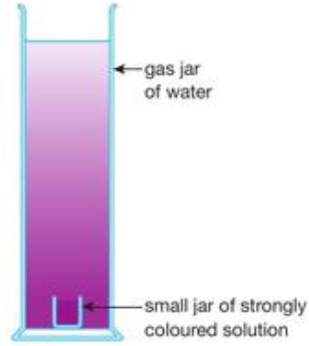
Ammonia particles and hydrogen chloride particles diffuse along the tube. A white ring of solid ammonium chloride forms where they meet. The white ring of ammonium chloride takes time to form (as it takes some time for the particles of ammonia and hydrogen chloride to diffuse along the tube), and appears *closer to the hydrochloric acid end*. Ammonia particles are lighter than hydrogen chloride particles and therefore move faster. The ammonia particles travel further in the same amount of time, which means that the ring forms further away from the ammonia end.

KEY POINT

You will learn about relative molecular mass in Chapter 5. The relative molecular mass of ammonia is 17 and that of hydrogen chloride is 36.5.

DIFFUSION IN LIQUIDS

Diffusion through a liquid is very slow if the liquid is completely still. For example, if a small jar of strongly coloured solution (such as potassium manganate(VII) solution) is placed in a gas jar of water, it can take days for the colour to diffuse throughout all the water. This is because *the particles in a liquid move more slowly than the particles in a gas*.The particles in a liquid are also much closer together than those in a gas and so there is less space for particles to move into without colliding with another one.



▲ Figure 1.15 Demonstrating diffusion in liquids

THE DILUTION OF COLOURED SOLUTIONS

Imagine you dissolve 0.01 g of potassium manganate(VII) in 1 cm^3 of water to make a deep purple solution. If we take the volume of 1 drop as 0.05 cm^3 we can work out that there are 20 drops in 1 cm^3 and each drop will contain 0.0005 g of potassium manganate(VII).

If you dilute this solution by adding water until the total volume is 10 000 cm^3, you should still just be able to see the purple colour.

There are now 200 000 drops in the solution. In order to see the colour each drop must contain at least one 'particle' of potassium manganate(VII), so there must be at least 200 000 'particles' in 0.01 g of potassium manganate(VII). This means that each 'particle' can't weigh more than 50 billionths of a gram (0.00000005 g).

This answer is not even close to the real answer. A potassium manganate(VII) 'particle' actually weighs about 0.000000000000000000000026 g and there are about 38 000 000 000 000 000 000 particles in 0.01 g! In reality, you need very large numbers of particles in each drop in order to see the colour.

REMINDER

Why the inverted commas around 'particle'? Potassium manganate(VII) is an *ionic compound* and contains more than one sort of particle. You will find out more about ionic compounds in Chapter 7.

THE SOLUBILITY OF SOLIDS

SOLUTES, SOLVENTS AND SOLUTIONS

When a solid dissolves in a liquid:

- the substance that dissolves is called the **solute**
- the liquid it dissolves in is called the **solvent**
- the liquid formed is a **solution**.

When you make a solution, the attractive forces between the particles in the solute (the solid) are being broken. At the same time, new attractive forces are being formed between the solvent particles and the solute particles. Whether a particular solid is soluble in any solvent depends on whether the new attractive forces are strong enough to overcome the old ones.

Only a certain amount of solute will dissolve in a fixed amount of solute at a particular temperature. When the maximum amount is dissolved a saturated solution is obtained. A **saturated solution** is a solution which contains as much dissolved solid as possible at a particular temperature. There must be some undissolved solute present.

MEASURING SOLUBILITY

CHEMISTRY ONLY

The **solubility** of a solid in a solvent at a particular temperature is usually defined as *'the mass of solute which must dissolve in 100 g of solvent at that temperature to form a saturated solution'*.



▲ Figure 1.16 A saturated solution

EXTENSION WORK

It is possible to get supersaturated solutions with some solutes. These contain more dissolved solid than you would expect at a particular temperature. If you add even one tiny crystal of solid to these solutions, all the extra solute will crystallise out, and you are left with a normal saturated solution. You don't have to worry about this at International GCSE. Having undissolved solid present when you make a saturated solution prevents supersaturated solutions forming.

In other words, it is the maximum mass of solute that dissolves in 100 g of solvent at a particular temperature.

For example, the solubility of sodium chloride (common salt) in water at 25 °C is about 36 g per 100 g of water.

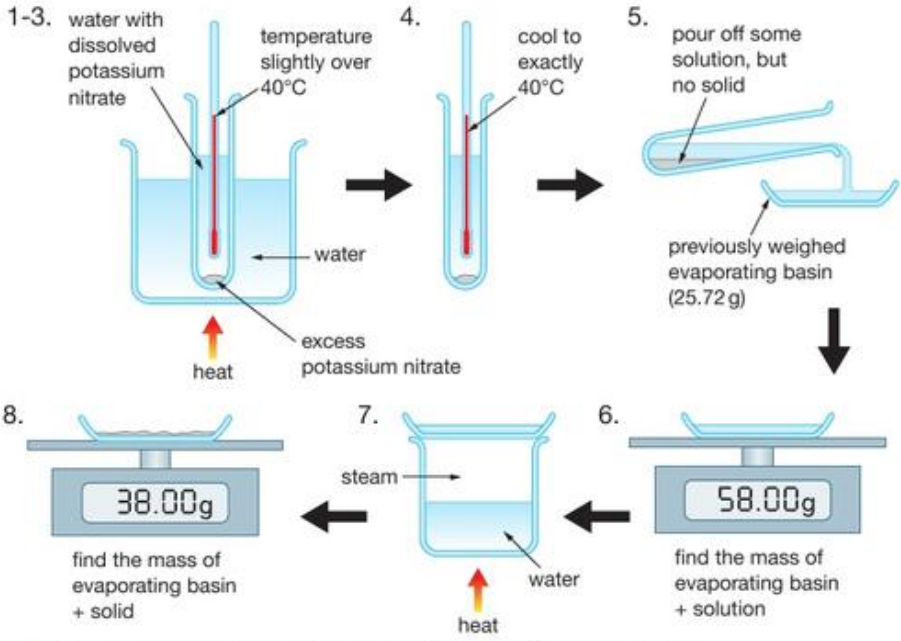
ACTIVITY 1

▼ PRACTICAL: INVESTIGATING THE SOLUBILITY OF A SOLID IN WATER

A procedure we can use to measure the solubility of potassium nitrate in water at 40 °C is as follows:

1. Weigh an evaporating basin.
2. Heat a boiling tube of water to just above 40 °C.
3. Add potassium nitrate to the water in the boiling tube and stir rapidly until no more of it will dissolve and there is undissolved solid left over.
4. Allow the solution to cool to exactly 40 °C.
5. Pour off some of the solution into the evaporating basin (it is important that you only pour off solution and no solid). You do not have to pour off all the solution.
6. Weigh the evaporating basin and contents.
7. Heat the evaporating basin and contents gently to evaporate off all the water.
8. When it looks as if all the water has evaporated weigh the evaporating basin and contents.
9. Heat the evaporating basin and contents again and then re-weigh. This is to make sure that all the water has, indeed, evaporated and is called *heating to constant mass*.

This procedure is summarised in Figure 1.17.



▲ Figure 1.17 Finding the solubility of potassium nitrate in water at 40 °C.

Safety Note: Wear eye protection and heat gently to avoid burns from hot solid 'spitting' out of the basin.

We heat the solution gently to make sure that none spits out. If some did spit out we would record a lower mass of solid and the solubility would appear to be lower than the actual value.

The results for this experiment could be:

Mass of evaporating basin/g	25.72
Mass of evaporating basin + solution/g	58.00
Mass of evaporating basin + dry crystals/g	38.00

We need to calculate the mass of the solid and also the mass of water evaporated from the solution:

mass of crystals = 38.00 – 25.72 = 12.28 g

mass of water = 58.00 – 38.00 g = 20.00 g

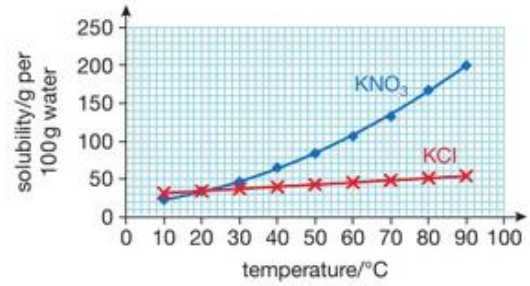
12.28 g of solid is the maximum mass that dissolves in 20.00 g of water, therefore 5 times as much would dissolve in 100 g of water. That works out at 61.4 g. The solubility of potassium nitrate at 40 °C is therefore 61.4 g per 100 g of water.

More generally, we can calculate the solubility of a substance in 100 g of solvent using the equation:

$$\text{solubility (g/100 g)} = \frac{\text{mass of solute}}{\text{mass of solvent}} \times 100$$

SOLUBILITY CURVES

The solubility of solids changes with temperature and you can plot this on a **solubility curve**. Most solids have solubility curves like those for the salts shown in Figure 1.18. Their solubility increases with temperature – either dramatically or just a little.



▲ Figure 1.18 Solubility curves for potassium nitrate and potassium chloride

HINT

Because solubility varies with temperature, you must always quote a temperature with a solubility value, e.g. the solubility of sodium chloride at 30 °C is…

You can use solubility curves to work out what mass of crystals you would get if you cooled a saturated solution.

Consider the solubility curve for potassium nitrate (KNO_3) in Figure 1.18. At 90 °C 200 g of potassium nitrate dissolves in 100 g water. At 30 °C only 50 g will dissolve. Therefore, if we have a solution containing 200 g of potassium nitrate dissolved in 100 g of water and let it cool down from 90 °C to 30 °C, 150 g of potassium nitrate must be released from the solution, which it does as crystals. We say that potassium nitrate *crystallises out of the solution* or *precipitates out of the solution*.

KEY POINT

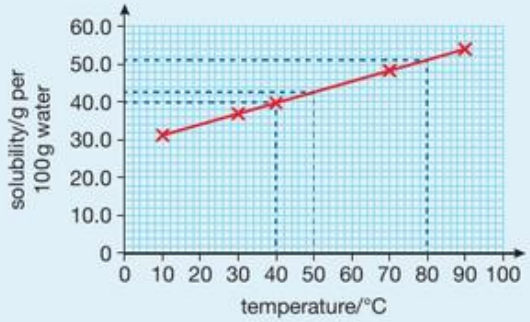
The dashed lines marked on the graph come from answers to the next part of the question. In this case the solubility curve is virtually a straight line – this will not always be the case. If you are asked to draw a line of best fit this can be either a straight line or a curve.

EXAMPLE

The table shows the solubility of potassium chloride at various temperatures.

Temperature/°C	10	30	40	70	90
Solubility/g per 100 g of water	31.2	37.2	40.0	48.5	53.9

a Plot a solubility curve for potassium chloride.



▲ Figure 1.19 Solubility curve for potassium chloride

b Use the solubility curve to find:

- **i** the solubility of potassium chloride at 50 °C
- **ii** the maximum mass of potassium chloride that would dissolve in 50 g of water at 40 °C.
- **iii** the temperature at which crystals will first appear if you cooled a hot solution containing 51.0 g of potassium chloride in 100 g of water.

Use the graph to find the information you want.

Part **i**: The graph shows that at 50 °C the solubility is 42.5 g per 100 g of water.

Part **ii**: From the graph we can see that the solubility at 40 °C is 40 g per 100 g of water. From this we can deduce that half as much, that is 20 g, will dissolve in 50 g (half the mass) of water.

The numbers we have used here are quite simple, but if you were, for instance, asked to work out the maximum mass that would dissolve in 34.6 g of water at 40 °C you could use the equation:

$$\frac{\text{mass of water (g)}}{100\text{ (g)}} \times \text{solubility (g per 100 g)} = \text{maximum mass that dissolves (g)}$$

So, with 34.6 g of water we would get:

$$\frac{34.6}{100} \times 40 = 13.84\text{ g of potassium chloride dissolves}$$

Part **iii**: Solubility measures the maximum mass of potassium chloride which will dissolve in 100 g of water at a particular temperature. Crystals will start to appear as soon as the solution becomes saturated. From the graph, it can be seen that more than 51.0 g of solid will be soluble at 90 °C, but as the solution is cooled the solubility decreases. Drawing a line across at 51.0 g shows that this is the maximum mass that will dissolve at 80 °C and therefore crystals will first appear at temperatures below this.

HINT

In different circumstances, you might have to find the 10 °C figure from the graph as well.

c What mass of potassium chloride would crystallise from the solution in **biii** if the temperature fell to 10 °C?

You can use the data in the table to find the solubility at 10 °C. This value is 31.2 g per 100 g of water. That means that 31.2 g of potassium chloride will stay in solution at 10 °C. Since you started with 51.0 g, the rest of it must have formed crystals:

mass of crystals = 51.0 – 31.2 g = 19.8 g

19.8 g of potassium chloride will crystallise out.

END OF CHEMISTRY ONLY

CHAPTER QUESTIONS

SKILLS CRITICAL THINKING (2)

1 What name is given to each of the following changes of state?

a Solid to liquid

b Liquid to solid

c Solid to gas

d Gas to solid

SKILLS INTERPRETATION (5)

2 a Draw diagrams to show the arrangement of the particles in a solid, a liquid and a gas.

b Describe the difference between the movement of particles in a solid and a liquid.

c The change of state from a liquid to a gas can be either evaporation or boiling. Explain the difference between evaporation and boiling.

SKILLS ANALYSIS

3 The questions refer to the substances in the table.

	Melting point/°C	Boiling point/°C
A	–259	–253
B	0	100
C	3700 (sublimes)	
D	–116	34.5
E	801	1413

a Write down the physical states of each compound at

i 30 °C.

ii –100 °C

iii 80 °C

SKILLS PROBLEM SOLVING (6)

b Which substance has the greatest distance between its particles at 25 °C? Explain your answer.

SKILLS REASONING (5)

c Why is no boiling point given for substance **C**?

(6)

d Which liquid substance would evaporate most quickly in the open air at 25 °C? Explain your answer.

SKILLS REASONING

4 Refer to Figure 1.14 on page 7 showing the diffusion experiment.

a Explain why the ring takes a few minutes to form.

b i If you heat a gas, what effect will this have on the movement of the particles?

ii In the light of your answer to i, what difference would you find if you did this experiment outside on a day when the temperature was 2 °C instead of in a warm lab at 25 °C? Explain your answer.

c Explain why the ring was formed nearer the hydrochloric acid end of the tube.

d Suppose you replaced the concentrated hydrochloric acid with concentrated hydrobromic acid. This releases the gas hydrogen bromide (HBr). Hydrogen bromide also reacts with ammonia to form a white ring.

i Suggest a name for the white ring in this case.

ii Hydrogen bromide particles are about twice as heavy as hydrogen chloride particles. What effects do you think this would have on the experiment?

SKILLS CRITICAL THINKING

5 Use the words given below to complete the following paragraph. Each word may be used once, more than once or not at all.

Sodium chloride dissolves in water to form a _____. The water is called the _____ and the sodium chloride is the _____. If the solution is heated to 50 °C some of the water _____ until the solution becomes _____ and sodium chloride crystals start to form.

boils solution solute saturated evaporates solvent condenses

CHEMISTRY ONLY

SKILLS INTERPRETATION

6 The solubility of sodium chlorate in water was measured at a number of different temperatures.

Temperature/°C	0	20	40	60	80	100
Solubility/g per 100 g of water	3	8	14	23	38	55

a Use these figures to plot a solubility curve, with the temperature on the horizontal axis and the solubility on the vertical one.

SKILLS ANALYSIS

b Use your graph to find the solubility of sodium chlorate at 50 °C.

c Determine the maximum mass of sodium chlorate that will dissolve in 40 g of water at 30 °C.

SKILLS PROBLEM SOLVING

d 20 g of sodium chlorate was added to 100 g of water and the mixture heated to about 70 °C. It was then left to cool with the thermometer in the solution. Use your graph to answer the following questions.

i At what temperature would crystals first appear in the solution?

ii If the solution was cooled to 17 °C, calculate the total mass of crystals formed.

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